

Introduction to Radiobiological Models



Souvik Das

Resident Medical Physicist
Tata Memorial Hospital, Mumbai

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- 1 Linear Quadratic (LQ) Model
- 2 Nominal Standard Dose (NSD)
- 3 Cumulative Radiation Effect (CRE)
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- Post-irradiation **cell survival** as a function of radiation dose can be **biophysically modeled** in several different ways.
- **Poisson statistics** are used for the basis for survival equations.

Mathematical Modeling

Poisson Statistics

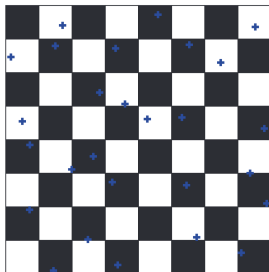


Figure: If it rains on a chessboard, and an average of x drops hits each square, How many squares are dry?

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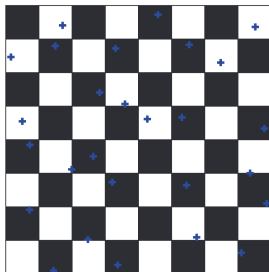


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- Poisson statistics describe a large number of random events happening to a large number of subjects, averaging out to a small number of events per subject.

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- The probability of a square being wet is given by:

$$P(\text{wet}) = 1 - e^{-x}$$

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Note

D_0 is defined as the radiation dose resulting in 37% survival. This is assumed to be equal to the radiation dose necessary to cause one **lethal** hit per cell.

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Note

To achieve a certain TCP, you should aim for a tumor cell survival of $(1 - TCP)$.

Target theory

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where D is the dose and D_0 is the dose required to reduce the surviving fraction to 37%.

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- This type of survival curve is seen for mammalian cells which are irradiated with **high LET** radiation such as alpha particles or carbon ions; very **radiation-sensitive** cells like lymphocytes and bone marrow cells; cells that have major defects in DNA doublestrand break repair; are synchronized in M phase; and for cells that have DNA double-strand break repair inhibited by chemical or gene knockdown.

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- This type of survival curve is seen for mammalian cells which are irradiated with **low LET** radiation such as X-rays or gamma rays; cells that are **radiation-resistant** like fibroblasts and epithelial cells; cells that have a normal DNA double-strand break repair; and for cells that are synchronized in G1 or S phase.

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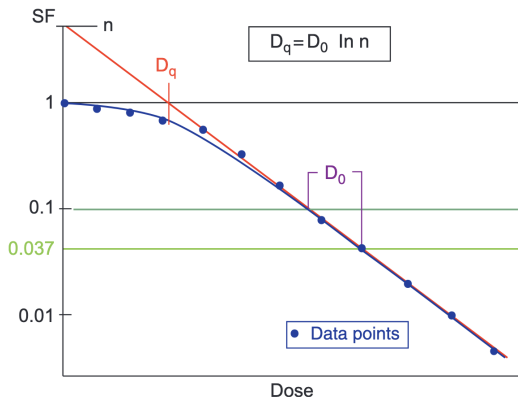


Figure: The single-hit, multitarget survival curve. Notice that it is curved at low doses and straight (e.g., survival is an exponential function of dose) at high doses. This allows you to calculate D_0 by taking measurements in the high-dose region

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 - D_q tells you how wide the shoulder is.
 - D_q is a measure of the cell's repair capacity. More repair means a larger D_q and a larger shoulder

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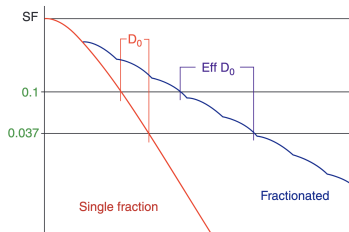
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- The low-dose portion of the curve greatly underestimates cell kill.
- Unlike the linear-quadratic model, the single-hit model is not based on a molecular mechanism.
- Unlike the linear-quadratic model, there is not a simple equation for “equivalent dose” given a daily fractionation schedule.

- A fractionated radiation survival curve has a shallower slope compared to a single-fraction survival curve.

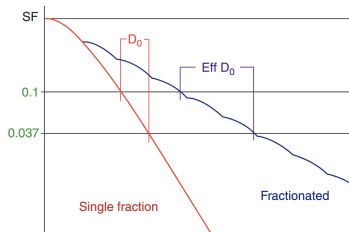
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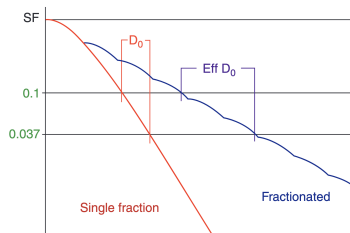
- A fractionated radiation survival curve has a shallower slope compared to a single-fraction survival curve.
- Assuming complete repair in between fractions, the shoulder is repeated with each fraction.
- D_0 versus effective D_0 . When radiation is fractionated, you need much more dose to achieve the same amount of cell kill. Therefore, effective D_0 is always larger than D_0



Fractionated Radiation and Effective D_0

Continue

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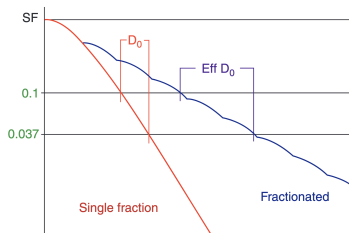
Continue

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$$\text{effective } D_0 = -\frac{D}{\ln(SF_D)}$$



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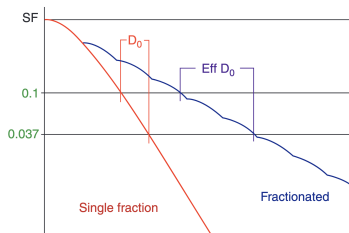
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- After x fractions to total dose xD Gy:
 $SF_x^D = e^{-xD/\text{effective } D_0}$



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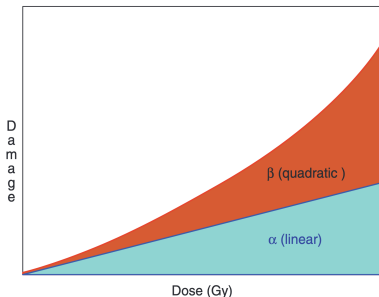
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 - Single-hit kill (α) is unrepairable damage and is **independent** of fractionation or dose rate. This corresponds to single-hit and **intra**-track accumulated damage.
 - Multi-hit kill (β) is repairable damage and is **dependent** on fractionation or dose rate. This corresponds to double-hit and **inter**-track accumulated damage.

Linear-Quadratic (LQ, Alpha-Beta) Model

Continue:

- The α/β ratio is the **dose** at which α kill and β kill are equal.
 - Low α/β ratio (“high repair”) tissues are relatively resistant at small fraction size and relatively sensitive at large fraction size.
 - High α/β ratio (“low repair”) tissues are relatively sensitive at small fraction size and relatively resistant at large fraction size.



Linear-Quadratic (LQ, Alpha-Beta) Model

Alpha-Beta Model and Dose Fractionation

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- Suppose we have n no of fractions of dose d each, then the total dose $D = nd$. The surviving fraction after n fractions is given by:

$$\begin{aligned} SF_n &= e^{-n(\alpha d + \beta d^2)} \\ \Rightarrow -\frac{1}{nd} &= \frac{\alpha}{\ln(SF_n)} + \frac{\beta d}{\ln(SF_n)} \end{aligned}$$

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- Such values are obtained for a variety of tissues and tumors, and are used to guide clinical decision-making regarding fractionation schemes.

Linear-Quadratic (LQ, Alpha-Beta) Model

α/β Ratios of Tissues and Tumor

- Most acute-reacting tissues are believed to have an α/β ratio ≈ 10 .
- Most late-reacting tissues are believed to have an α/β ratio ≈ 3 or less.
- CNS tissue (brain, cord) is believed to have an α/β ratio $\approx 1-2$.
- Most tumors are believed to have an α/β ratio ≥ 10 .
- Some low α/β tumors may have an α/β ratio $\approx 1.5-4$. Breast and Prostate are the “classic” low α/β tumors.

Linear-Quadratic (LQ, Alpha-Beta) Model

Biologically Effective Dose

- One advantage of the linear-quadratic model is that it is easy to calculate effective doses for different fraction sizes.

Definition

Biologically effective dose (BED) is an extrapolated dose given over infinitely many fractions.

- For n fractions of d dose per fraction:

$$\begin{aligned}\text{BED}_{\alpha/\beta} &= nd \left(1 + \frac{d}{\alpha/\beta} \right) \\ &= D \left(1 + \frac{d}{\alpha/\beta} \right)\end{aligned}$$

- $\text{BED} = \text{total physical dose} \times \text{relative effectiveness of that dose.}$

Treatment Interruption

Consequences

Explain the consequences of unplanned gaps on tumour cells during radiotherapy treatment.

- **Repopulation** of tumour cells may occur.
- The unplanned gap during radiotherapy will cause the cells within a **tumour to proliferate** and leads to an increase in the number of cells that the radiation needs to kill.
- There is evidence that **repopulation can be accelerated in the treated tumours** so that this effect can be significant.
- Thus an increase of overall treatment time (due to the gap) will decrease the efficacy of radiotherapy.

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- 2 When multiple fractions are given in a day, the interval between them should be **at least 6 hours**.

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Give the recommendations about how to compensate for unscheduled gaps in radiotherapy treatment.

- 1 The main recommendation is to compensate for a gap by **continuing to deliver the same number of fractions in the same overall time**, by inserting the missed fractions (using the original dose per fraction) either during weekends or as extra fraction on previously treatment days.
- 2 When multiple fractions are given in a day, the interval between them should be **at least 6 hours**.
- 3 If the break in treatment occurs early in the schedule, then two fractions per day can be used. However, if there are not enough days left on the original schedule to catch up using two fractions on each remaining days, three fractions per day can be considered subjected to the availability of resources.

Question 1: Which of the following remains unaltered while changing the plan from fractionated radiotherapy to brachytherapy?

- ① Total Dose
- ② Dose per fraction
- ③ BED
- ④ Relative effectiveness of that dose

Question 1: Which of the following remains unaltered while changing the plan from fractionated radiotherapy to brachytherapy?

3 BED

MCQ Example

Question 2: A tumour containing 10^8 cells is inactivated by radiation with a mean lethal dose of $D_0 = 1.8$ Gy. What is the number of surviving tumour cells after a radiation dose of 45 Gy?

- ① 1.2×10^{-3}
- ② 1.4×10^{-4}
- ③ 1.4×10^{-3}
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Question 2: A tumour containing 10^8 cells is inactivated by radiation with a mean lethal dose of $D_0 = 1.8$ Gy. What is the number of surviving tumour cells after a radiation dose of 45 Gy?

8 1.4×10^{-3}

Solution

The number of surviving cells is given by:

$$N = N_0 e^{-D/D_0}$$

where N_0 is the initial number of cells, D is the dose, and D_0 is the mean lethal dose. Substituting the values, we get:

$$N = 10^8 e^{-45/1.8} \approx 1.4 \times 10^{-3}$$

Linear-Quadratic (LQ, Alpha-Beta) Model

Practical Applications

Problem 1

If a treatment is planned for 70 Gy/ 35 fractions, but due to departmental constraints, we need to complete it in 25 fractions. What is the new dose per fraction for same tumor control with $\alpha/\beta = 10$? (Ans: 2.65 Gy)

Linear-Quadratic (LQ, Alpha-Beta) Model

Equivalent Dose in 2 Gy fractions (EQD₂)

- EQD₂ is the dose in 2 Gy fractions that would produce the same biological effect as the actual treatment.
- For n fractions of d dose per fraction:

$$\text{EQD}_2 = \frac{BED}{1 + \frac{2}{\alpha/\beta}}$$
$$\Rightarrow \text{EQD}_2 = D \left(\frac{d + \alpha/\beta}{2 + \alpha/\beta} \right)$$

Linear-Quadratic (LQ, Alpha-Beta) Model

Practical Applications

Problem 2

You want to treat a lung cancer to 60 Gy in 2 Gy fractions, but the first five fractions are given at 3 Gy/fx due to SVC syndrome. Assuming $\alpha/\beta = 3$, how much additional dose should you deliver at 2 Gy per fraction?
(Ans: 42 Gy)

Linear-Quadratic (LQ, Alpha-Beta) Model

Practical Applications

Problem 3

A 40-year-old lady with colorectal cancer is being treated with radiotherapy. A dose of 45 Gy in 25 daily fractions over 5 weeks is planned. After ten fractions, treatment was cancelled for five fractions due to machine breakdown. It was planned to deliver the isoeffective tumour dose by increasing the size of the ten fractions to finish the treatment as scheduled. By using the "equivalent dose" method, calculate required dose per fraction for the last ten fractions. Assume $\alpha/\beta = 10$ Gy for colorectal cancer. (Ans: 2.54 Gy)

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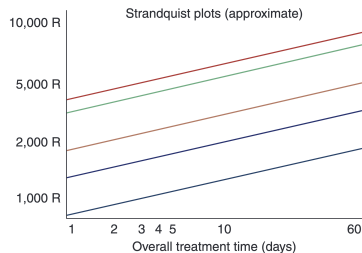
- 1 Linear Quadratic (LQ) Model
- 2 Nominal Standard Dose (NSD)**
- 3 Cumulative Radiation Effect (CRE)
- 4 Time-Dose-Fractionation (TDF)

Need for time-dose models

- The aim of the radiotherapist is to obtain high probability of tumor control with minimal normal tissue complications.
- Since typical treatment plans are quite complicated to compare so with the help of these models, the treatment regimes can be easily modified.
- Time dose relationships have been evolved in different forms like graphical, tabular and mathematical forms. The most commonly used models are:
 - Nominal Standard Dose (NSD)
 - Cumulative Radiation Effect (CRE)
 - Time Dose Fractionation (TDF)

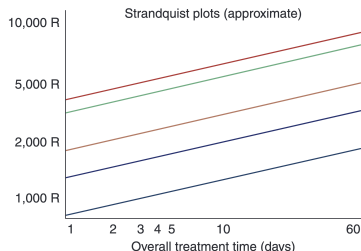
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- An empiric equation based on the Strandquist Plots:



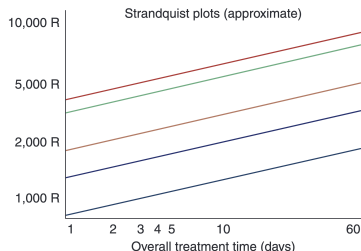
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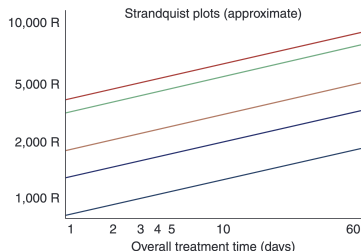
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 - He found that the relationship between total dose and overall treatment time formed a series of parallel lines on a logarithmic chart.
 - The Strandquist plots (approximate). These parallel lines represent various skin-related endpoints such as erythema, desquamation, and necrosis.



Nominal Standard Dose (NSD)

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- There are two versions of the equation: one with time and fractionation, another with just fractionation.
- For N fractions of total dose D (in rads) delivered over T days:

$$D = \text{NSD} \times N^{0.24} \times T^{0.11}$$

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- Kirk et. al. extended the NSD concept to the cumulative radiation effect (CRE) for such type of schedules. This is based on sub-tolerance of normal tissue which was subjected to irradiation.
- The partial tolerances are additive in nature,

$$PT = \sum PT_i$$

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Time-Dose-Fractionation (TDF)

- Orton and Ellis(1973) developed time dose and fractionation concept to make use of partial tolerance more practicable. The TDF for fractionated beam therapy was given by:

$$\text{TDF} = d^{1.538} \times n \times x^{-0.169} \times 10^{-3}$$

where d = dose per fraction, n = number of fractions, $x = t/n$, t = overall treatment time in days.

